



**UNIVERSITY OF ZAMBIA**

**SCHOOL OF HUMANITIES AND SOCIAL SCIENCE**

**DEVELOPMENT STUDIES DEPARTMENT**

**DS 101: INTRODUCTION TO DEVELOPMENT STUDIES**

**LECTURE NOTES**

**Coordinator:**

**Moonga H. Mumba (Mr.)**

**UNZA 2009**

## **DS 101: INTRODUCTION TO DEVELOPMENT STUDIES I**

**Pre-requisite: None**

### **AIM**

This course introduces students to the subject matter of Development Studies. Students are introduced to the main concepts in Development Studies and theories of development.

### **OBJECTIVES**

At the end of the course students should be able to:

- i. Identify and understand the main issues involved in Development Studies;
- ii. Relate developmental issues to specific policies;
- iii. Demonstrate an understanding of the basic concepts upon which subsequent courses at higher levels in the department are built.

### **COURSE CONTENT**

#### **INTRODUCTION**

- Defining Development – Mr. M. H. Mumba
- Diverse approaches to the study of development – Mr. M. H. Mumba
- Interdisciplinary study of development – Mr. M. H. Mumba.

#### **DEVELOPMENT PROBLEMS IN DEVELOPING COUNTRIES**

- Various labels of developing countries – Mr. M. H. Mumba
- General characteristic of developing countries – Mr. M.H. Mumba
- Poverty and poverty alleviation – Mr. M. H. Mumba

#### **TRADITIONAL THEORIES OF DEVELOPMENT**

- The emergency of competing schools of thought – Mr. M. H. Mumba
- Modernization theories – Mr. M. Lipalile
- Marxist theories of imperialism – Mr. M. Nkula
- Dependency theories of development - Mr. M. Nkula
- Alternative approaches to development – Mr. M.H.Mumba

#### **CONTEMPORARY ISSUES IN DEVELOPMENT**

- Agriculture and food security – Mr. M. Lipalile
- Population and Development – Mr. M. Matenga
- Environment and development – Mr. M. Matenga
- Gender and development – Ms. C. M. Wonani
- Corruption and development – Mrs. R.P. Mumba
- Conflict and development – Mrs. R.P. Mumba

## **CULTURE AND DEVELOPMENT**

- Why culture matters – Mrs. N.S. Mwale
- Mass culture vs. Elite culture – Mrs. N.S. Mwale
- Elite culture and cultural imperialism - Mrs. N.S. Mwale

## **NEW DIRECTIONS IN DEVELOPMENT THINKING**

- The impasse in development thinking - Mr. M.H. Mumba
- The evolution of neo-liberalism - Ms. C.M. Wonani
- Globalization – Ms. C.M. Wonani
- The human rights approach to development – Mr. D. Elemu
- Millennium Development Goals – Mrs. R.P. Mumba

## **ASSESSMENT**

### **Continuous Assessment**

- |                                         |   |     |
|-----------------------------------------|---|-----|
| - 2 essays: 10% each                    | = | 20% |
| - 1 test: 20%                           | = | 20% |
| - Tutorial attendance and participation | = | 5%  |
| - Oral presentation                     | = | 5%  |

|                          |          |            |
|--------------------------|----------|------------|
| <b>Final examination</b> | <b>=</b> | <b>50%</b> |
|--------------------------|----------|------------|

|                           |          |            |
|---------------------------|----------|------------|
| <b>Total course grade</b> | <b>=</b> | <b>100</b> |
|---------------------------|----------|------------|

## **TEACHING METHOD**

There will be four contact hours per week comprising 3 lectures of one-hour duration each and one-hour tutorial.

## **REQUIRED READINGS**

De Beer, F. and Swanepoel, H., Introduction to Development Studies (Oxford University Press Oxford, 2001).

Meier, G., (ed), Leading Issues in Economic Development, (Oxford University Press, New York, 1978).

Martinusson, J., Society state and market (Zed books Limited, London, 2004)

## **RECOMMENDED READINGS**

- Chigunta, F.J. et al (1998), Will the poor always be with us? "Poverty Experiences in Zambia? Committee for campaign Against Poverty, Lusaka.
- De Rivero, O. (2003), The Myth of Development. "The Non-viable Economics of the 21<sup>st</sup> Century." Zed Books Ltd., New York.
- Giddens, A., Studies in Social and Political Theory (Hutchinson, London, 1979).
- Gutkind, P. & P. Waterman (eds), African Social Studies (Heinemann, London, 1977).
- Lynne, B. & C. Sylvian, Women in the Third World (Earthscan Ltd. London, 1988).
- Macaror, D. (2003), What the Market Does to people. "Privatization, Globalization and Poverty." Clarity Press, London.
- McCann, G. & S. McCloskey. (2003), From the Local to the Global. "Key Issues in Development Studies." Pluto Press, London.
- Munck, R. & D. O'Hearn (2001), Critical Development Theory: "Contributions to a New paradigm." Zed Books, London.
- Rist G. (2001), The History of Development. "From the western origins to global faith." Zed Books, London.
- Schuurman, J.F. (2001), Globalisation and Development Studies. "Challenges for the 21<sup>st</sup> Century." SAGE publications Ltd. London.
- World Resources Institute, World Resources: Towards Sustainable Development (Oxford University Press, New York, 1992).

## UNIT ONE: INTRODUCING DEVELOPMENT

### References:

- o De Beer, F. and Swanepoel, H., Introduction to Development Studies (Oxford University Press Oxford, 2001).
- o Sapru, R.K. (1994) Development Administration. Sterling Publishers, New Delhi.
- o Todaro, M.P. and S.C. Smith (2003) Economic Development. 8<sup>th</sup> edition. New Delhi, Pearson Publication.

Among the issues this session covers include:

- the conceptual definition of development
- the diverse approaches to the study of development
- the interdisciplinary study of development.

### Defining Development

The concept of development has no universally accepted definition. It is a dynamic concept which means different things to different people. Development is derived from the word 'develop.' To develop can mean among other things:

- To progress;
- To evolve;
- To unfold;
- To improve;
- To advance from simple to more complex.

Development is a gradual<sup>1</sup> and continuous process that has both qualitative and quantitative aspects. Orthodox economists define development as sustained increase in the wealth of a given economy. Among economists, words like economic growth and development are sometimes loosely used interchangeably. Do the two concepts mean the same thing? No. Economic growth is narrower than development and it cannot be equated to development. Economic growth focuses exclusively on the production of goods and services. By definition, economic growth entails a sustained rise in the production of goods and services in a nation. Economic growth is measured in monetary terms in a specified period. Measurements such as Gross Domestic Product (GDP) and Gross National Product (GNP) are used to gauge the rate of growth in an economy.

**Gross Domestic Product (GDP):** measures the total amount of goods and services produced in an economy in a given year. Goods and services that are produced by foreigners in an economy under consideration are also included in the measurement. Where as **Gross National Product (GNP):** is used to measure the total amount of goods and services produced by **nationals** of a given country. It also includes what nationals residing in other countries produce. GNP excludes what foreigners produce.

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<sup>1</sup> You cannot achieve development overnight.

## **Economic development**

In addition to sustained increase in the production of goods and services, economic development entails fundamental structural changes that accompany such a growth.

### **Features of economic development**

- o Decline in the share of agriculture in the GDP and the proportion of its workers;
- o The share of manufacturing in GDP goes up and its workers increase;
- o In the initial stages of economic development, population growth rate soars but later starts to decline;
- o Consumption patterns of people change with people spending less on basic necessities and more on durable consumer goods, leading to an internal industry growth;
- o The key element in the process is the participation of local people in activities that bring about the structural changes in the economy. Although foreigners can participate, they alone cannot bring about economic development. Hence the locals should be the beneficiaries of the fruits of development and major participants in activities that produce those fruits. If there is just a minority that enjoy the fruits, that situation does not bring about economic development.

### **Major determinants of economic development**

- Efficient resources allocation (natural and human)
- Investments and savings
- Improvements in science and technology
- Increased skills and education
- Economies of scale.<sup>2</sup> Two types:

**a) Internal economies of scale** (benefits that accrue to specific companies, e.g. reduced costs; increased specialization, selling by-products, stocks etc)

**b) External economies of scale** benefits that accrue to the industry as a whole, e.g. Managerial skills, risk bearing (insurance), staff facilities, R & D.

Now the big question is: why do people always want to associate economic growth to development? Income and wealth are important but to concentrate on wealth exclusively is wrong. Income and wealth are not ends in themselves. We derive wealth through economic growth and wealth is very important to human life. Some people would just openly say that without income or wealth you are nothing. They should be used as instruments for other purposes.

At the same time, even if an economy is growing, this should not be the only concern for the welfare of society. There are many factors that can bring about such quantitative increases in a given economy.

- o We need to ask ourselves questions such as who produces those goods and services.
- o Who benefits? Under what conditions are the goods produced?
- o Usually economic growth offers little to the poor.

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<sup>2</sup> These are benefits that accrue to a firm or industry coming as a result of large scale production

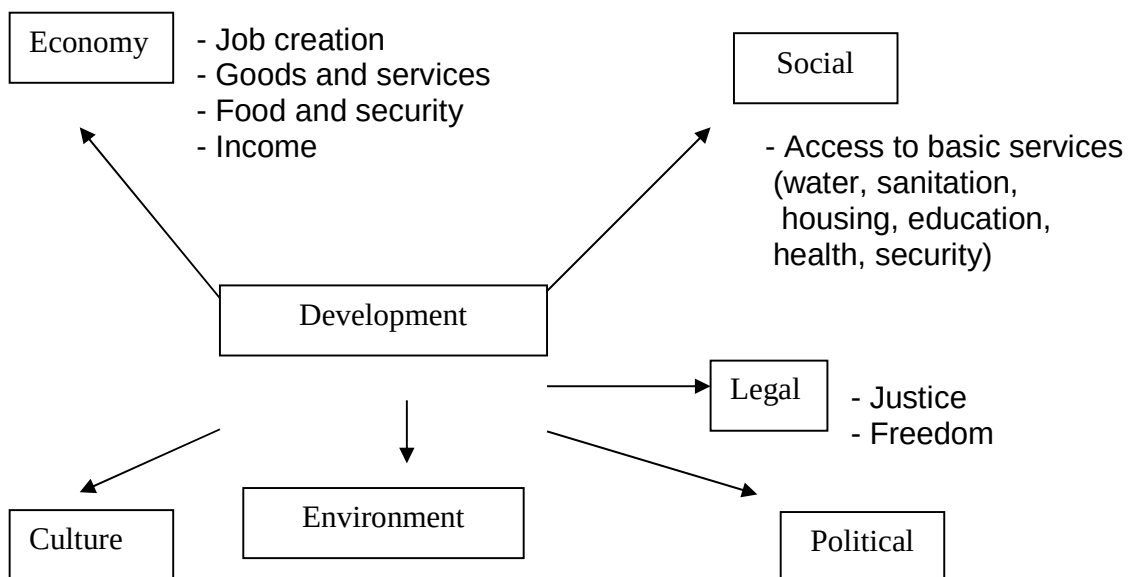
Decades of experience has shown that economic growth does not on its own lead to improving living standards for everybody in a given society. Sometimes, economies have grown at a great cost to human life. Economies have grown whilst trampling on human rights.

- o We have heard of people being locked up in factories.
- o People have been reported working in industries without protective clothing.
- o Economic growth can also be achieved using unsustainable exploitation of natural resources.

Besides this a growing economy, there are other angles that are equally important and need to be taken on board when addressing development.

Development is a diverse and complex phenomenon consisting of many dimensions which are interdisciplinary in nature. It has economic, social, political, cultural, environmental, and other aspects, centered on improving living conditions of a given people. We need to take into account all these aspects all the time when evaluating the development of a given people.

### DIMENSIONS OF DEVELOPMENT



- |                                                                                                                |                                                                                                                         |                                                                                                                                  |
|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>- Gender equality</li> <li>- Heritage of traditional Culture</li> </ul> | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>- Effective utilization of resources</li> <li>- Health and Sanitation</li> </ul> | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>- Participation</li> <li>- Freedom</li> <li>- Equality</li> <li>- Transparency</li> </ul> |
|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|

The emphasis placed on development is the human factor – the process of development should be in the service of human beings (Swanepoel 2000). It must involve a process in which the capacity of the people is built up so that they can take responsibility for their own development.

According to Sapru (1994) Development is a process of improving the well-being of people. It is about raising the standards of living of the people, improving their

education and health, and also opening out to them new and equal opportunities for a richer and more varied life.

Todaro and Smith (2003) define development as ‘ a multidimensional process involving major changes in social structures, popular attitudes, and national institutions, as well as acceleration in economic growth, the reduction of inequality, and the eradication of poverty.’

Dudley Seers argues that development involves creating conditions necessary for full realization of human potential. According to him, an evaluation of development must take into account the following three interrelated processes in a growing economy.

- i. Reduction in poverty
- ii. Reduction in unemployment
- iii. Reduction in inequality

Seers contends that if any of these persist amidst wealth creation then it would be strange to call whatever process that leads to that process of accumulation as development. The 1998

Development Report plainly acknowledges Seers assertions when it states that:

- Development is of the people: the whole idea is to enhance peoples’ capabilities, e.g. in education, health, shelter nutrition.
- For the people: development has to be pursued for people’s sake. Economic growth should translate into people’s lives.
- By the People: people need both beneficiaries and active partakers in decision making on matters affecting their lives.

### **Core values of development<sup>3</sup>**

Three basic components that serve as a conceptual basis and practical guidance for understanding the inner meaning of development are:

1. Sustenance: Ability to meet Basic Needs – food, shelter, health, protection, etc. Without these life is impossible.
2. Self-esteem: To be a person – every person needs to have a sense of worthy; not to be used by others for their own ends. We all need to have a dignified life and self-respect.
3. Freedom from servitude: To be able to choose. Individual and nations need an expanded range of choices to make.

Todaro and Smith (2003 quoting the World Development Report of 1991) sum it all when they argued that ‘the major challenge of development is to improve the quality of life. It calls for higher incomes – better education, higher standards of health and nutrition, less poverty, cleaner environment, more quality opportunity, greater individual freedom and a richer cultural life.’

### **Sustainable Development**

Today, it is generally acceptable that western science does not have universal solutions for development problems. It is evident that all knowledge systems

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<sup>3</sup> Goulet cited by Todaro and Smith 2003:54ff



should be mobilized to address the existing and future challenges of society. Culture and knowledge systems emanating from local contexts are increasingly being acknowledged as being important for sustainable development in various communities. Besides the intellectual crisis, there has also been an environmental crisis that has come to undermine the progress that man has so far made. The need to combine development and environment goals has become evident in the international policy arena. The new concern stresses the importance of integrating environmental protection and conservation values into the development process. Since the mid 1970s, sustainable development has emerged as the preferred way of dealing with the rapid degradation of the natural environment.

### **What is Sustainable Development?**

Sustainable development is a new way of looking at reality. It does not replace all previous ideas on development. It provides us with an umbrella for development though with new and sometimes radically different questions and answers. World Commission on Environment and Development (WCED 1987) in the Brundtland Report *Our Common Future* defined sustainable development as:

“development that meets the needs of the present without compromising the ability of future generations to meet their own needs. ...Sustainable development is a process of change in which the exploitation of resources, the direction of investments, the orientation of technological development, and institutional change are all in harmony and enhance both current and future potential human needs and aspirations”

It suggests an apparent paradigm shift in the world view of ways countries should develop, from concentration on pure economic growth to a wider concern with environmental, social and economic sustainability. As we try to satisfy economic, social and political needs of the people, throughout the world, we should not degrade natural resources. Sustainable development has two chief objectives:

1. Intra-generational equity – aiming for more equitable allocation and utilization of natural resources.
2. Intergenerational equity – ensure that future generations will be in a better position than existing ones.

The development and exploitation of natural sources being called for among other things, therefore imply:

- a. that natural resources be exploited rationally, and preserved for benefit of future generations;
- b. that environmental considerations be integrated in economic plans, programmes and projects.

In other words the environment needs to be accepted as an integral part of the development process, and need not to be considered in isolation. We need not to use environmental resources to such extents that it may affect negatively future resource users.

What it means therefore is that:

- o when we use renewable resources, we should allow them to regenerate.
- o For non-renewable resources, there is need for finding alternatives and rationalizing the use of those resources which human beings have not yet found any substitutes for use in their place.

Initially (1980s) the concept was more centred on environmental sustainability but with time the concept has evolved a lot further. This time around three key strands of sustainable development have emerged: environmental sustainability, which has to do with the utilization of natural resources efficiently, there is also economic sustainability and social sustainability.

## **CHARACTERISING DEVELOPING COUNTRIES**

- o Various labels for developing countries
- o General characteristic of developing countries

## **REFERENCES**

- o De Rivero, O. (2003), The Myth of Development. "The Non-viable Economics of the 21<sup>st</sup> Century." Zed Books Ltd., New York.
- o Meier, G., (ed), Leading Issues in Economic Development, (Oxford University Press, New York, 1978).
- o Sapru, R.K. (1994) Development Administration. Sterling Publishers, New Delhi.
- o Todaro, M.P. and S.C. Smith (2003) Economic Development. 8<sup>th</sup> edition. New Delhi, Pearson Publication.

### **Various labels for Developing countries**

Different terms have been used to highlight profound socio-economic and political differences between advanced industrialized countries and those that are still backwards, particularly the recently decolonized states of Africa, Asia, Eastern Europe and to some extent Latin America.

Various labels have been informed by geo-political imaginations among superpowers (US and allies under the western bloc and USSR under the Eastern bloc). For instance super powers, especially during the cold war were actively seeking to influence and shape political and economic life in the newly independent countries.

Among the labels include:

- a) The Third world – US and Allies were the First, USSR, the second world and the rest, who later on formed the non-aligned movement were labeled as Third world.
- b) South
- c) Poor countries
- d) Low Income countries
- e) Tropical countries
- f) Less developed countries
- g) Developing countries
- h) Underdeveloped countries, etc.

## **GENERAL CHARACTERISTICS OF DEVELOPING COUNTRIES**

### **Developing countries differ in:**

- Geographical size of individual countries
- Population size
- Historical experience
- Culture
- Economic conditions (some richer others poorer in natural resources)
- Political structure (some led by military governments, others one party dictatorship, others by democracy, etc).

Even amidst the variation and diversity among developing countries, some development analysts tend to identify some common elements among these countries. Nonetheless, it must be understood that not all characteristics are of equal strength in all countries.

1. **Economic Index**

- o Low output per worker
- o Low income per population

2. **Conditions of Production**

- o Small Industrial Sector
- o Absence of economies of scale (internal and external)
- o Primitive and Crude techniques
- o Absence of specialization
- o Little Capital per worker
- o Scarcity of products requiring much capital
- o Small savings per head of bulk of the population
- o Small enterprises (tutemba)
- o Inadequate physical and social infrastructure
- o Low output per acre, particularly of protein foods
- o Concentration of exports on few primary products e.g. Tea, copper, cotton, sugar
- o Low value of international trade per head
- o Low labour utilization

3. **Levels of Living**

- o Large proportion of expenditure on food and necessities
- o Under-nutrition and malnutrition
- o High mortality rates
- o Bad housing and overcrowding
- o Bad hygiene, public health and sanitation
- o Inadequate medical attention
- o Inadequate cultural facilities
- o Low life expecting
- o Disparities of elite and masses of people.

4. **Aptitudes**

- o Absence of training facilities
- o Inadequate education
- o Illiteracy
- o Ignorance, false beliefs and useless or harmful knowledge
- o 'also non-economic forces operating on output per worker

5. **Attitude towards work of life**

- o Poor discipline
- o No punctuality
- o Caste, religious or racial prejudices
- o Superstition
- o Lack of ambition and weak acquisitive motivation
- o Apathy

- o Lack of adaptability
- o Unwillingness to bear risks
- o Inability to cooperate outside the family or tribe
- o Contempt for manual work
- o Submissiveness
- o Low standards of hygiene
- o Work-spreading attitudes
- o Absence of birth control and high fertility rates.

6. **Institutions**

- o Land tenure hostile to improvements
- o Uneconomic distribution of plots
- o Poor markets for labour, credit and capital
- o Poor marketing facilities for products
- o Poor flow of information
- o Weak government (national and local)
- o Political uncertainty
- o Corruption, inefficient, and inadequate administration
- o Rigid class, caste system
- o Inequality
- o Absence of opportunities
- o Arbitrary legal administration
- o Non-enforcement of contracts
- o Prevalence of child labour
- o Inferiority of women status
- o Weak or absence of middle class, very well to do and very poor. 

7. **Implications of Characteristics on LDCs development**

1. Low incomes – low savings – low investment - low income.
2. Low income – poor health – low productivity – low income.
3. Low income – absence of economies of scale – low productivity – low income

## POVERTY AND POVERTY ALLEVIATION

### References

- o De Beer, F. and Swanepoel, H., Introduction to Development Studies (Oxford University Press Oxford, 2001).
- o Chigunta, F.J. et al (1998), Will the poor always be with us? "Poverty Experiences in Zambia? Committee for campaign Against Poverty, Lusaka.
- o Todaro, M.P. and S.C. Smith (2003) Economic Development. 8<sup>th</sup> edition. New Delhi, Pearson Publication.
- o World Resources Institute, World Resources: Towards Sustainable Development (Oxford University Press, New York, 1992).
- o World Bank

### Introduction

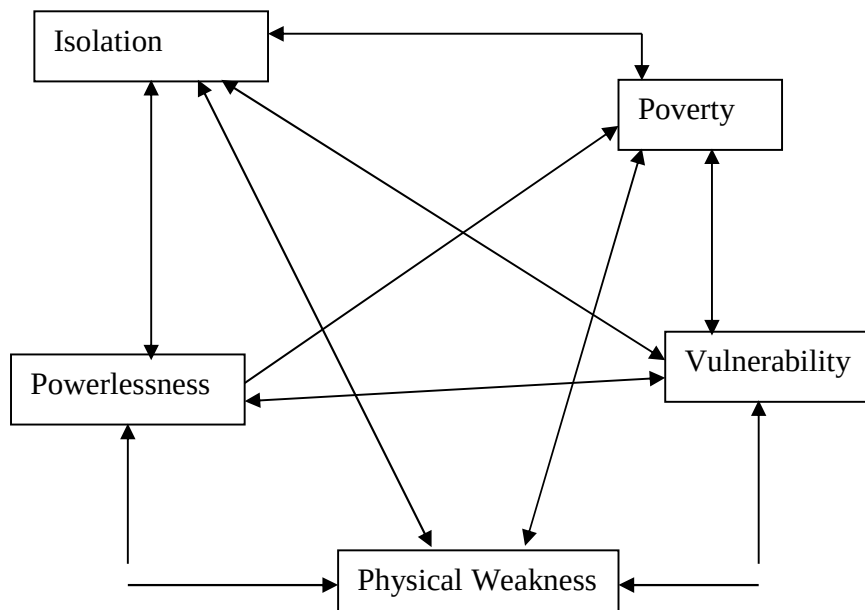
The renewed concern about human deprivation in recent years has generated a growing body of research on poverty.

"Anyone who has ever struggled with poverty knows how expensive it is to be poor" *Anonymous*.

Most people recognize poverty when they see it, but very few are able to give a definition to it. This is because poverty is too complex and multidimensional.

Probably one useful starting point in giving an understanding to poverty is to look at the concept of deprivation. Deprivation simply means lacking. Poverty is about lacking. It generally refers to the whole spectrum of deprivation and ill-being. Individuals, families or nations etc that are unable to command sufficient resources to satisfy their basic needs or whose consumption falls below the certain norms are all said to be in poverty.

### Deprivation trap<sup>4</sup>



Poverty determines all the other clusters of disadvantage:- it contributes to physical weakness, isolation, vulnerability through lack of assets to meet contingences, powerlessness because of low status, voicelessness.

### POVERTY INDICATORS

Who the poor are? First, the *poor are not a homogenous* group. The *chronic poor* are at the margin of society and constantly suffering from extreme deprivation. The *borderline poor* are occasionally poor, such as the seasonally unemployed. The *newly poor* are direct *victims of structural adjustments* of the 1980s, such as retrenched civil servants and industrial workers.

In identifying the poor you need to use some method to establish a baseline. Among methods commonly used are:-

### Three perspectives on poverty

- **Income perspective.** A person is poor if, and only if, her income level is below the defined poverty line. Many countries have adopted income poverty lines to monitor progress in reducing poverty incidence. You have to identify the level of income or expenditure below which a person is considered poor. Some times people may use Minimum per capita caloric intake. This baseline measures food consumption (caloric intake). If the consumption of calories drops below the baseline minimum standard of living for a household, then you can consider such a household as to be poor.

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<sup>4</sup> Source Beer and Swanepoel (2000) citing Chambers (1983).

- **Basic needs perspective.** Poverty is deprivation of material requirements for minimally acceptable fulfilment of human needs, including food. This concept of deprivation goes well beyond the lack of private income: it includes the need for basic health and education and essential services that have to be provided by the community to prevent people from falling into poverty. It also recognizes the need for employment and participation.
- **Capability perspective.** Poverty represents the absence of some basic capabilities to function—a person lacking the opportunity to achieve some minimally acceptable levels of these functionings. The functionings relevant to this analysis can vary from such physical ones as being well nourished, being adequately clothed and sheltered and avoiding preventable morbidity, to more complex social achievements such as partaking in the life of the community. The capability approach reconciles the notions of absolute and relative poverty, since relative deprivation in incomes and commodities can lead to an absolute deprivation in minimum capabilities.

## CLASSIFICATION OF POVERTY

Poverty can also be classified according to the level of disadvantage/deprivation experienced.

### Absolute versus Relative Poverty

One commonly used approach in this kind of distinction is the categorization of poverty into absolute and relative poverty.

### Absolute poverty

This is a situation where incomes are so low that even a minimum standard of nutrition, shelter and personal necessities cannot be maintained /afforded. In other words, absolute poverty means that an individual is so poor that one is not able to afford three meals a day. It is more of a matter of death. Those that are in absolute poverty are usually in desperate positions.

### Estimation of absolute poor in developing countries<sup>5</sup>

|                                 |                  |
|---------------------------------|------------------|
| Global                          | 1 billion +      |
| Asia                            | 64%              |
| Africa                          | 24% <sup>6</sup> |
| Latin America and the Caribbean | 12%              |

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<sup>5</sup> Stewart 1995 and World Bank 1996.

<sup>6</sup> Poverty is growing fastest in Africa; number increased by two-thirds between 1970 & 1985.



### **Basic facts about absolute poverty**

1. Three-quarters of the developing countries' poor people live in rural areas. There is, however, a recent trend towards the urbanization of poverty, owing to the rapid increase in urban slums and squatter settlements.
2. There is a close link between poverty and the environment. About three-quarters of the developing countries' poor are clustered in ecologically fragile areas, with low agricultural potential. Owing to a lack of employment and income-earning opportunities outside agriculture, environmental degradation and poverty continuously reinforce each other.
3. Poverty has a gender bias. A large proportion of poor households are headed by women, especially in rural Africa and in the urban slums of Latin America. Female members of a poor household are often worse off than male members because of gender-based differences in the distribution of food and other entitlements within the family. In Africa women produce 75% of the food - yet they suffer greater deprivation than men.

The following criteria, drawn from various participatory studies, were used by local people in Asia and Sub-Saharan Africa for defining poverty and ill-being:

- Being disabled (for example, blind, crippled, mentally impaired, chronically sick).
- Lacking land, livestock, farm equipment, a grinding mill.
- Being unable to decently bury their dead.
- Being unable to send their children to school.
- Having more mouths to feed, fewer hands to help.
- Lacking able-bodied members who can feed their families in a crisis.
- Having bad housing.
- Being "poor in people", lacking social support.
- Having to put children in employment.
- Being single parents.
- Having to accept demeaning or low-status work.
- Having food security for only a few months each year.
- Being dependent on common property resources.
- Lack of security on account of vulnerability to external events such as bad weather, illness, economic shocks, etc.
- Being deprived of Human Rights - through discrimination, disempowerment, exclusion, that lead to loss of human dignity.
- Voicelessness and marginalisation etc.

### **Relative Poverty**

This is an expression of poverty of one entity in relation to another entity. This is comparative deprivation. For example in relation to South Africa, Zambia is poor. In other words, relative poverty refers to those people whose basic needs are met, but who in terms of their social environment, still experience some disadvantages. You find that while they are able to survive, such people might be materially disadvantaged compared to others living in the same community or society.

## **Poverty Manifestation in Rural and Urban Areas**

Another approach in understanding poverty is to look at its manifestation in either rural or urban areas. Some people may argue that poverty is poverty, wherever it occurs. However, the way poverty presents itself in different contexts differs. A good case is the manifestation of poverty in rural areas and urban areas. Poverty in rural areas differs from the way it shows up in urban areas.

### **Differences of poverty manifestation in Urban and Rural areas**

#### **Urban Poverty**

- o Is usually income based:-most urban poor are engrossed in money economy than the rural poor. In urban areas you need income (money) for transport, accommodation, school, water, garbage collection, etc.
- o Owning land or accommodation in an urban area, can be an economic resource but not in a rural area.
- o Urban poverty is also more characterized with overcrowding (congestion), staying in illegal squatters (compounds) which are not well serviced with civic authorities.
- o Usually, people are affected with poor housing, sanitary facilities (contamination with faecal matters and other environmental hazards such as garbage – Disease outbreaks such as dysentery, cholera are very common, which come as a result of population density and absence of piped (treated water), lack of proper sewer disposal and garbage collection. People have limited choices. What matters to them sometimes is just having a roof over their heads.

#### **Rural Poverty**

- o Rural poverty on the other hand is more characterized with geographic isolation.
- o People have no close access to schools, hospitals, market. They have to walk long distances to access such services.
- o Communication channels e.g. roads, phones, etc are also usually bad.
- o Access to natural capital is a key for livelihood basis in rural areas. You need to have land for cultivation, forestry for energy and other resources, livestock etc for drought power, etc.

However, differentiating the two (urban and rural) types of poverty can pose a problem as the two are closely related. Livelihoods and survival strategies for rural and urban poor are sometimes interlocking. Rural poverty pushes people towards the cities (urban areas). A poor person in a village may decide to go and earn a living in town in order to send remittances to support his/her family in a rural area. In the same vain, an urban dweller may decide to go and do business or simple agriculture to supplement urban income.

### **Poverty alleviation**

- o There is a need to be very careful when putting certain interventions meant to reduce poverty in whichever context you are looking at it. If you just introduce policies that portray urban bias, for instance, rural people will want to migrate

to urban areas. In a similar manner, if interventions favour rural areas, the poor people would move in that direction. You need to promote policies that favour a balance between the two.

- o People who live in poverty should not be treated as a liability but rather as a creative asset who will contribute more than anyone else to eradicate poverty. Handling poverty requires doing development differently. Voices of the poor must be the guide. The poor should take a leading role in matters that affect their lives.
- o Other than treating symptoms, we need to understand the underlying causes of poverty. As development analysts our role should be more of facilitating; there is need to use participatory approaches.
- o There is also need for safety nets for vulnerable people. Special attention should be paid on provision of education, health and nutrition.
- o Gender equity and security for marginalized members of society are bedrocks of development. Equity for women and education for girls is perhaps the single most important development tool. Our role should be that of empowering the poor through provision of knowledge, information and other strategic resources, following some kind of a needs assessment.
- o Right policies and institutional frameworks; addressing current economic, socio-cultural, structural and sectoral weaknesses of policies and institutions should be put in place.

## TRADITIONAL THEORIES OF DEVELOPMENT

What is a theory? A theory is a set of logical propositions that explains how a certain phenomenon occurs. Theories are usually based on scientific investigation (based on facts). A theory explains how something is structured or the way it operates. Theories can either be *normative* – they can generalize about what should happen or be the case in an ideal world or *positive* – in the sense of dealing with what has generally been the case in the past. Another axis in the difference between theories is seen as relating to whether they are holistic, or partial. Theories of Development may be regarded as sets of supposedly logical propositions, which aim to explain how development has occurred in the past or how it should occur.

The idea of “development”-to improve the human condition, to reduce or eliminate oppression, misery, and poverty—has been a central feature of human thought for millennia and it has spanned different civilizations and vastly different cultural traditions. Different theories<sup>7</sup> and their assumptions about development have arisen at different times in the history of development – for instance we have two major strands; the unilinear models (where modernization belongs) and the Radical approaches which include Marxists, Structuralists, Dependency, and World System theories. However, in the recent past another strand collectively known as Alternative Development approach has emerged.

However, development is very much a post-World War II concept. This idea was nothing short of revolutionary. To the Western world, the societies of Africa or Asia were viewed as destined to remain distinct and separate. This new idea of universal development placed all societies in the world for the first time on a single and shared continuum from least to most developed, on the same trajectory towards a common development. All of humanity became comparable and all of us were headed to the same place. The defining characteristic of this new vision of universal development was that, within the span of one generation, all parts of the world could achieve through international public actions the standards of living that the rich nations of the West had achieved in three or four generations, but without incurring the heavy social costs that they had to pay or inflicted on others along the way.

### 1 MODERNISATION THEORY

The most frequent formulation involved the concept of “modernization”. Modernization theorists like Ragnar Nurske, W. Arthur Lewis, and Walter Rostow were among the early pioneers of international development and they took as their point of departure the notion that the distinguishing feature of developed societies was their economic, social, political, and cultural *modernity*. In their conception, such “*modern*” societies were contrasted with *backwardness*, the characteristic of *traditional* societies.

To these thinkers and to the early development movement, development was a matter of modernizing traditional societies. The prosperous and expanding urban-industrial sector of richer countries was their development template. Structural transformation from an underemployed rural society to a productive urban-industrial society became the ruling dimension in development thought, policy, and practice.

**How do we acquire modernity attributes according to Modernisation theory?** Western capitalist countries play a key role in fostering development for poor countries.

- o Was dominant in the 1950s & 60s, during decolonization period, to combat communism.
- o Based upon European development experience; suggests that all countries can become modern industrial societies
- o Premised on growth and expansion of capitalism and industrialisation
- o Takes a diffusionist approach – imitation (institutions, policies, western science and technology).
- o Smelser (1988:387) defines modernization as a complex set of changes that take place in almost every part of society as a society attempts to industrialize.
- o For a country to be seen as modern, proponents argue that it has to undergo an evolutionary advance in science and technology which in turn would lead to an increased standard of living for all.
  - i. Western investment in factories, expertise and equipment – use loans from World Bank (Trickle down)
  - ii. Western funding to introduce meritocratic education (values of universalism, individualism and competition (Hoselitz)
  - iii. Mass media to disseminate modern ideas e.g. nuclear families (Inkles)
  - iv. Urbanisation to be encouraged (Hoselitz)

The question at that time was not what to do but how to do it. It is necessary to understand the context in which thinking about this question occurred some 50 years ago. Very thoughtful figures like Gunnar Myrdal and Raul Prebisch were strongly influenced by the experience of successful, state-led economic planning during the war, and also by the war success of the centrally planned Soviet Union. They were also deeply influenced by the Keynesian demonstration of the possibility of an active, interventionist, macroeconomic full-employment policy as well as the experiences in the United States of F. D. Roosevelt's New Deal and the creation of a national social welfare system, the Welfare State, in the United Kingdom immediately following the war. In the optimistic spirit of 1945 it was assumed that such successes and precedents would be readily replicable throughout the world and it was assumed that the State alone had the ability to act in the long-term interest of its citizens.

The State, therefore, was the central feature of initial conceptions of international development. National development plans were emphasized as keys to modernization. Through such plans, the State would create an investment pool

by mobilizing domestic and foreign savings. Investments would be targeted to industrial expansion and the State would protect infant industries through such import-substitution instruments as tariff and quota policies. The structural transformation required for development would also require the creation of modern workers to work in the modern urban-industrial sector. Unprecedented levels of public investment in education and training would, therefore, be required. In addition, the State would encourage policies and practices to reduce average family size in poor countries to accord more with that of the “modern/Western family”.

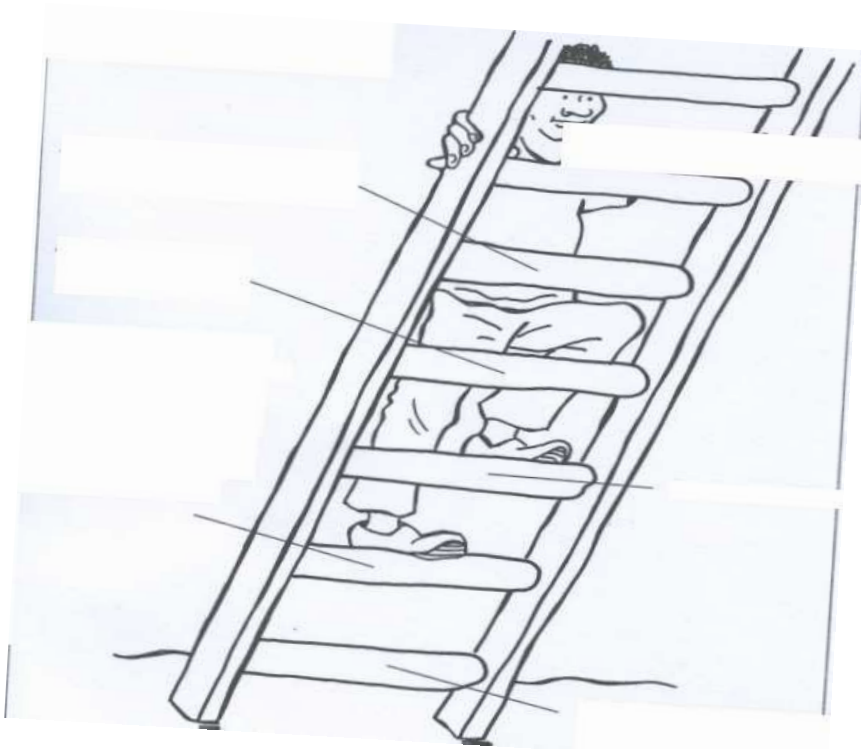
Development was regarded and treated as equal to growth in per capita gross national product (per capita GNP), and the mainstay of early development economics became the Harrod-Domar formula, that treated the rate of growth of per capita income as the independent variable. Gross National Product and per capita GNP, themselves products of World War II, assumed almost complete exclusivity as the core metrics of development.

This universal treatment of all societies established the early intellectual tradition of international development that essentially held the human condition to be linear, convergent, predictable, and manageable, while at the same time dividing the world along a sharp North-South axis. Modernization was assumed to be inevitable through the application of the model of already successful industrial states and the ever-expanding advances in science and technology. Moreover, modernity would be achieved quickly, since latecomer societies could avoid the long and painful processes that the successful, modern states of the day had been required to follow.

In this climate, the United Nations declared the 1960s the “Development Decade”, a ten-year period during which it was claimed backwardness would cease to be a problem as poor countries would move up the continuum to industrialization and modernity. This vision of universal and easily attainable modernization for all had an appeal that stimulated international enthusiasm. A new growth industry emerged in the number and variety of international development organizations that were established throughout the 1960s and 1970s.

Faith in this possibility was sustained and reinforced by the economic successes of the early post-war decades. During the period from the late 1940s to the early 1970s, the world economy grew practically everywhere at an unprecedented pace. Jump-started by the financial resources of the Marshall Plan (see European Recovery Program), European countries recovered and grew at nearly 5 per cent per year. Led by Japan, the economies of Asia registered average growth rates of 6 per cent. Brazil doubled its per capita output in an 18-year period and Latin America as a whole experienced annual growth of 5.3 per cent. Africa also grew rapidly at 4.4 per cent per year. The two decades from 1950 to 1970 were a period of unparalleled gains in global prosperity. World per capita gross domestic product (per capita GDP) grew by almost 3 per cent annually—more than three times as fast as in 1913-1950. Notwithstanding the expanding Cold War that also characterized these years, the period has come to be termed the “Golden Age” of world economic growth.

## Rostow's Stages of Economic Growth



- 5 The age of high Mass consumption: Move towards service industry
- 4 The drive to maturity: industry takes lead to increasing prosperity or all, substantial percent of income saved (10-20%), economy moves from consumption to production
- 3 Take-off: high economic growth and investment in infrastructure begins, Savings (5-10% income) and investments, strong inter-sectoral linkages (agric/industry)
- 2 Pre-conditions for take-off: Emergence of Agric as leading sector, middle classes, gradual improvements in transport
- 1 Traditional society: poverty, primary production and traditional values  
archaic technology, no Science and technology

Talcott Parson's analysis of distinguishing features between a modern and traditional society.

| <b>Traditional values</b> | <b>Modern values</b> |
|---------------------------|----------------------|
| • Ascription              | Achievement          |
| • Particularism           | Universalism         |
| • Collectivism            | Individualism        |

According to him, it is traditional values that block a country from developing. He also talks about valuing the extended family as blocking geographical mobility.

### **Criticism of modernization theory**

1. It is ethnocentric because
  - (a) it devalues traditional values and social institutions e.g. extended families
  - (b) it ignores increasing inequality within and between countries
  - (c) it is not a neutral theory as it suggests (it promotes western capitalist values)
- 2 Education in developing world mainly benefits small, local elites (those at the top)
- 3 It assumes unlimited natural resources for industrial expansion. Also ignores ecological issues
- 4 There is no, one single way to advancement and historical context is also important.
- 5 The cultures of developing countries e.g. the importance of the family may be a response to economic insecurity and low levels of material well-being not the cause of it.

## **2 DEPENDENCY THEORY**

Dependency theories represent a critique of modernization theory's assumptions that poor countries are poor because of their lack of economic, social, and cultural development. Dependency theories argue that the poverty experienced by low-income countries is the immediate consequence of their exploitation by wealthy countries on which they are economically dependent. Advocates argue that poor countries are "locked-in to a downward spiral of exploitation and poverty."

Dependency theory draws from theories of imperialism. It dominated development thinking in the late 1960 and 1970s. Instead of conceiving development as an *original state* underdevelopment is viewed as something created within a pre-capitalist society that begin to experience certain forms of political and economic relations with one or more capitalist societies. Underdevelopment is not a product of internal deficiencies as modernization theorists tend to claim. It is a process or state that results not so much as the absence of something [but] as the presence of something (Beer and Swanepoel 2000: 41).



Modernization theorists tend to hold that economic development occurs in succession of capitalist stages and today's underdeveloped countries are still in a stage, depicted as an original stage, of the history through which the now developed countries passed long time ago. Yet even the a modest acquaintance with history shows that underdevelopment is not a original or traditional and neither the past nor the present of underdeveloped countries resembles in any important respect the past or the present developed nations. The now developed countries were never underdeveloped, though they may have been undeveloped. Historical research demonstrate that contemporary underdevelopment is to a large measure the historical product of past and continuing economic and other relations between the satellite underdeveloped and the now developed metropolitan countries (Frank: 1969).

Dependency refers to asymmetrical, structural relationship between social formations, such that the dependent society is shaped to a large extent by the social dynamics and interests generated in the dominant society. The process of dependency operates through interplay of social actors who respond simultaneously to their specific historical conditions and to the larger framework of worldwide relationships in which they are included. These relations are an essential part of the structure and development of the capitalist system on a world scale as a whole. The development of the system entails capital accumulation in the core countries and surplus extraction in the periphery. The centre exploits the periphery for cheap labour, raw materials and markets, fertile soils, and control in ideology in order to increase their wealth. The centre-periphery hierarchy and its exploitation is repeated along a chain, from wealth nations to capital cities in poor nations to regional cities and then to the hinterlands. At the same time, peripheral countries are kept dependent on the centre for a market for their cheap, primary exports as well as a source for more expensive finished products.

There are also now new forms of dependency which emerge under conditions shaped by older forms, premised on constraining the degree of freedom of dependent social formations with respect to development strategies and political decisions in developing countries.

The new era of dependency (Castells, 1987):

1. a technological revolution of historic proportion, with its basic nucleus in information technology;
2. the formation of the international economic system working as a unit in real time, supported by technological infrastructure that makes such simultaneity possible; and
3. fundamental socioeconomic restructuring, in both dominant and dependent societies, that has established a new basis for capital accumulation and political legitimacy at the centre while imposing significant social costs on both types of societies.

Dependency theory is a useful analytical tool to understand our world today. Economic dependency is inevitably generating the development of underdevelopment and making the much desired development in backward nations impossible as long as the existing asymmetrical relations continue. It is

the technological revolution that is driving the restructuring of the production system, while now the older forms are now expressed as financial dependency and the imposition of austerity policies of international capital. It is a combination where the emerging structural forces pull economies in one direction while the older financial and political powers pull governments in another direction.

A number of scholars have contributed to the dependency school of thought. Among them include Paul Baran, Andre Gunder Frank, Theotonio Dos Antos, Samir Amin. All these believe that the capitalist system not a competitive one but based on monopolies. Thus poor countries cannot expect to change their situation through competition. Andre Gunder Frank (1972) calls this the development of underdevelopment. Dependency results when foreign businesses make important economic and political decisions for their own advantage and without regard to the best interests of the local population. Except for a few local businessmen who serve the interests of foreign capital, the local population becomes impoverished.

Dependency theories contend that power is central in enforcing unequal economic arrangements. Local leaders opposed to inequitable economic arrangements are suppressed. Unionization is outlawed. A popular government opposed to outside influence can be overthrown by the military. Often the police and the military act, not for the needs of the masses, but rather for the economic elite (Appelbaum & Chambliss, 1997:174).

## **WORLD SYSTEM THEORY**

This is another variant of the dependency theory which came in partly in order to address certain inadequacies of the classic dependency theory. It is associated mainly with Emmanuel Wallerstein. Wallerstein (1974) analysed the development of World System based on the capitalist mode of production as a unit of analysis. He argues that the capitalist world system as a whole develops that than individual societies. While internal characteristics of societies are important, their impact is said to be contextual and determined by the society's position in the world system at the time.

According to Wallerstein the dependency theory is successful in explaining the lack of development experienced by some countries (like those in Central America), but cannot account for the development that occurred in areas like East Asia (Appelbaum & Chambliss, 1997:174). To account for the explanatory gap, Immanuel Wallerstein (1974, 1979) coined the term World-System. The world Systems theory represents a system of international stratification. Its proponents argue that "we must understand the world capitalist system as a single unit, not as individual countries" (Appelbaum & Chambliss, 1997:174). Unlike dependency theory, World system theory argues that there is room for poorer countries to advance within the context of the world economy although this happens rarely.

The modern capitalist economy comprises:

- i. **Core states** : Core countries are the most advanced industrial countries and control most of the wealth in the world economy.
- ii. **Periphery** – countries which are economically poor and the state is weak; consists of low-income, largely agricultural, countries. Core countries manipulate it for the economic advantage of the core.
- iii. **Semi-periphery** - The Semi-periphery refers to countries that occupy an intermediate position in the world economy. They extract profit from the periphery and are simultaneously exploited by the core. The existence of the middle (the semiperiphery) is critical, because poor countries can hope to advance at least to this stage. With the possibility of advancement within the world system, revolutionary tendencies are mitigated. These have relatively complex economies, sophistication and strength of state structures and cultural integration. These stand in between the core and Periphery. However, economic and political control of the system lies within the core states.

It is the concept of the semi-periphery that among other things which enables to take account of the newly industrializing and relatively sophisticated countries such as Brazil, Argentina and some countries in East Asia. It also points to the fact that at certain junctures opportunities are created for countries to move up; this is essentially from peripheral to semi-peripheral. However, there is no example of any country that has moved all the way from periphery to core. Therefore, just like other dependency thinkers, Wallerstein maintains that the only concrete solution to problems of underdeveloped countries is the overthrow of capitalism and the institution of a socialist world- government.

#### **A. The world economic system: Four overlapping elements:**

1. The world system is a world market for goods and labor
2. The world system calls attention to a division of the world's population into economic classes
3. The world system is an international system of formal and informal political relations among the most powerful countries, whose competition with one another helps shape the world economy
4. It includes a carving up of the world into unequal economic zones with the wealthier zones exploiting the poorer zones.

## **Criticisms of Dependency Theory**

Dependency theories have been criticized from a variety of perspectives. Among criticisms leveled against them include that:

1. they do not offer any feasible solutions
2. they seem to lack mechanisms for analyzing some beneficial changes that have taken place in some peripheral societies;
3. they do not analyse heterogeneity within the periphery.

Other criticisms are that dependency theory is an ahistorical context; it tends to gloss over or oversimplify the prehistory of these societies. There is also overgeneralization about contemporary developing countries. It is also argued that the bulk of the dependency school is generally too pessimistic about the possibility of economic development in developing countries. A central policy recommendation for underdeveloped societies for quitting the capitalist system by socialist revolution has been generally unhelpful to those countries which have opted for this course (Beer and Swanepoel 2000).

## ALTERNATIVES APPROACHES TO DEVELOPMENT<sup>8</sup>

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### Introduction

The search for appropriate theory to inform the development of developing countries is a never ending process. In contrast to the traditional theories of Development such as Modernization and the Radical theories (Marxist theories of Imperialism and Dependency), there is another loose strand of development theories that has emerged generally referred to as Alternative Approaches to Development. Alternative approaches are not one but many. They include Basic Needs, Neo-Populism, Another Development, Eco-development, Sustainable Development, Bottom-up, people-centered, participatory, etc. Some people even included post development as part of these approaches. However, there is one common thing among them all: discontentment.

### Conceptualization of Alternative Development

*When we look into a mirror we think the image that confronts us is accurate. But move a millimetre and the image changes. We are actually looking at a never-ending range of reflections. But sometimes a writer has to smash the mirror for it is on the other side of that mirror that the truth stares at us.'* Harold Pinter, Nobel Prizewinner in Literature 2005.

Reflecting on the above allegoric insight by Pinter:

Could we say that Alternative Development is just an *inverted mirror of conventional mainstream development*? Or should we say that Alternative Development is *the never-ending range of reflections*? Or furthermore, should we say that, in order to investigate the real meaning of Alternative Development, it might be necessary *'to smash the mirror'* and look beyond the concept of development?

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<sup>8</sup> Adopted from ISS MA student essay competition

## Defining Alternative Development

What is Alternative Development? Alternative to what?; Alternative to whom? The notion of 'alternatives' requires analysis of some trends (past, or present) in development thinking, such as mainstream conventional development. Friedman 1992:9 defines Alternative Development as an 'ideology that argues for the rectification of existing imbalances in social, economic, and political power.' He sees it as 'a moral justification centered in claiming for expansion and defense of human rights, citizens' rights and flourishing of people.' It is a different, creative way of constructing development. It is about introducing alternative practices and redefining the goals of development. It is inevitably centered in the 'politics of claiming.' It seeks the intellectual voice of the disempowered by trying to put forward in the development agenda their moral claims as a response to the hegemonic powers that oppress them. It is 'the champion of the poor' in that it advocates for their social and political empowerment. And the state plays a key role in alternative development. Chambers (1983) identifies it as a search for 'good change' which can lead to the expansion and 'flourishing of human life.'

- o Alternative development is different in three spheres:
  - a) Agents;
  - b) Methods; and
  - c) Objectives or values of development (Nederveen-Pieterse 2001:73-74).

**Confusing practices** in the mainstream development industry is the incorporation of 'add-on features' and 'co-optation of alternative development.' Notions of participation, empowerment, Human Development, etc, are now seen as part of the conventional development discourse. For instance, governments, international development agencies such as the World Bank are employing the same the concepts, yet make things go much the same way and are not willing to make any meaningful change towards improving the welfare of the disadvantaged.

## Critique to Alternative Development:

It has failed to:

- Build clear macro-micro relations;
- Construct a truly macro approach;
- Develop a coherent theoretical position;
- Differentiate itself fully from conventional development.

## POPULATION, ENVIRONMENT AND DEVELOPMENT RELATIONSHIP

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### INTRODUCTION

Some of the current or topical issues in development are population and environment. As developing countries are grappling with the problems of development, issues of population and environment come to the forefront. The question we need to ask ourselves is why is population and environment an issue? And more importantly, to who is population and environment as issue? If the population and environment are indeed an issue to development, whose theories or ideologies are we using in our analysis?

Explanations to these issues are embedded in theories espousing certain narratives and counter narratives. The relationship between population, environment and development may follow different approaches. Each approach

is likely to yield some useful information. However, scientists are still struggling to measure and explain many of the basic relationship among population, environment and development. Among the different approaches, some have taken a negative view of population on development and environment, while others have taken a positive view of population growth.

The negative view on population is that population growth affects output i.e. reduces output and brings poverty. In other words, population growth represses living standards and, therefore, should be controlled. This view was expressed by, *inter alia*, the Merchantalists; Rev. Thomas Robert Malthus; and neo-Malthusians.

The positive on population is that people are like human capital that leads increased production; increased revenues for government through taxation; and increased innovation. This view comes from different people like the Romans (who desired more people to build the empire and more revenue); Physiocrats (increased production); and Esther Boserup (innovation).

There are several other approaches/models of explaining population. These include: Marxists/neo-Marxists (see population problem as a result of contradictions in the capitalist mode of production); biological theories (Herbert Spencer); and sociological theories.

However, there is another view on population that emphasizes that population is a “multiplier” of the effects of other factors that influence the environment. This view is explained in the IPAT equation. The IPAT approach emphasizes population’s direct and indirect effects on the environment. The IPAT equation can be interpreted as follows:

Total Environmental Impacts (I) are a product of population size (P), the level of Affluence or per capita consumption (A), and the level of technology (T). That is,  $I = PAT$ . The equation implies that, although population, consumption, and technology might each have an *independent effect* on the environment (I), their *combined effect* is probably the most important.

The explanation on the relationship between population, environment and development can, therefore be depicted through a triangle.





## POPULATION GROWTH TRENDS

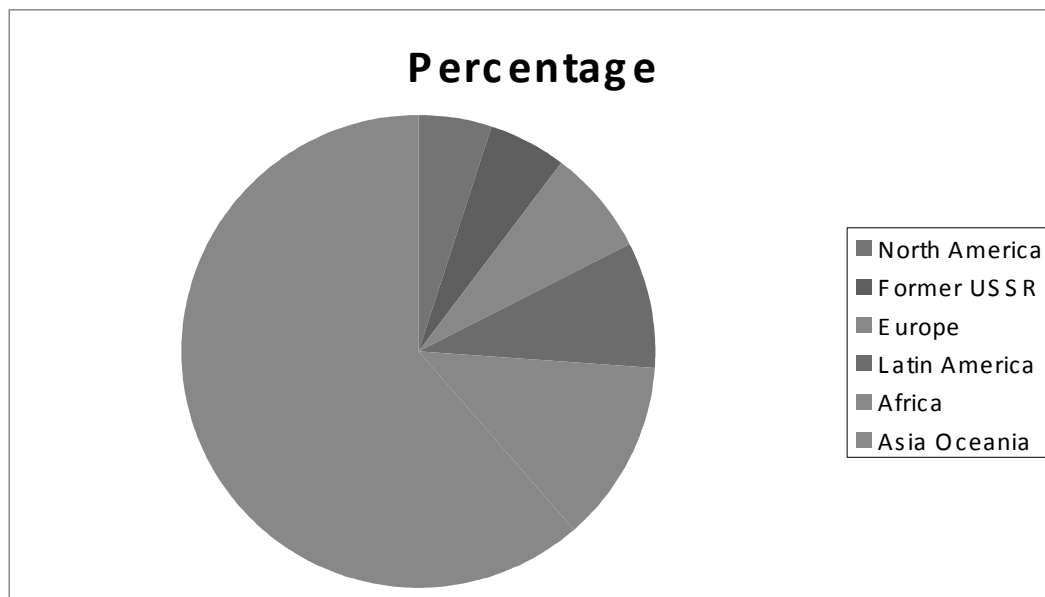
For us to understand why population is an issue, we have to look at its growth trends through history.

### World Population Growth Trends

- 1650 World population 0.5 billion  
Growing at the rate of 0.3% per annum  
Doubling time of 250 years
- 1900 World population 1.6 billion  
Growth rate of 0.5% per annum  
Doubling time of 140 years
- 1970 World population 3.6 billion  
Growth rate of 2.1% per annum  
Doubling time of 33 years

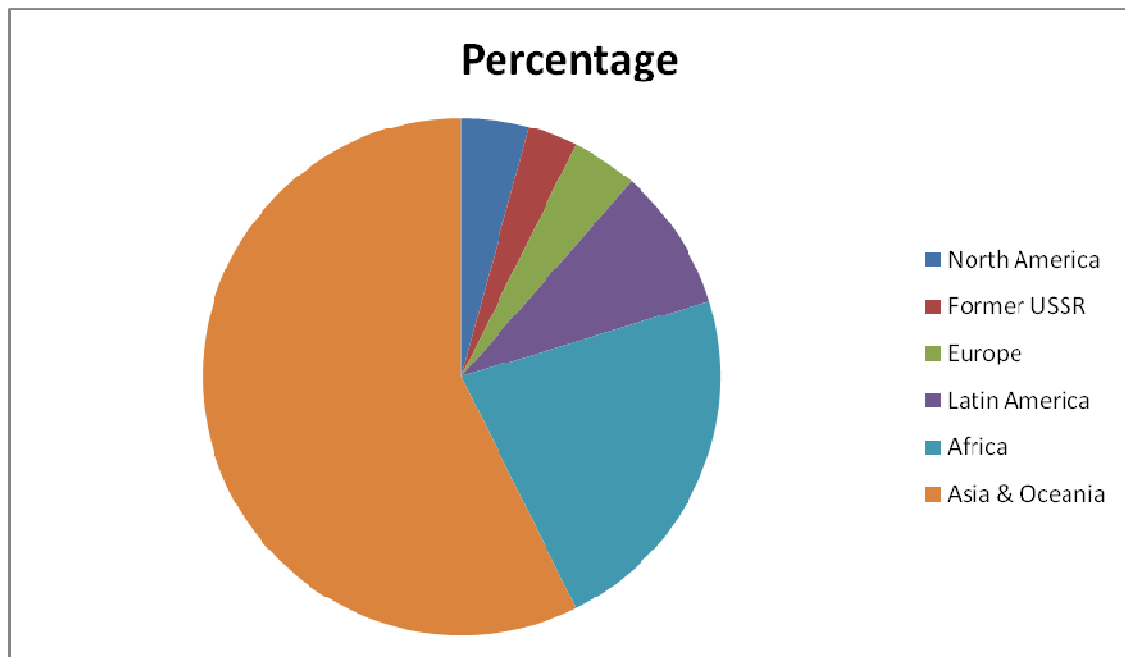
In the year 2000 the world population reached 6 billion

### Current World Population Distribution by Region



More than  $\frac{3}{4}$  of world population is in developing countries.

## Projected World Population - 2050



**More than three quarters of the population still in developing countries.**

## ENVIRONMENT

The term environment refers to the surrounding within which both living and non-living things exist and interact. It consists of various components of surroundings that are inter-linked. The components include land, water, air and other external influences which affect development and life of all organisms including man. The environment, therefore, is an integrated system encompassing life and the resources on which the life depends, together with all the interactions among the different components involved.

### Functions of the environment

The environment performs a number of essential functions for humankind. These include, general life support services, supply of raw materials, absorption of waste products, and aesthetic services.

#### ***(1) General Life Support***

The environment contains ingredients essential for life, health and human welfare. For example:

- Food is produced or harvested from nature.
- The ozone layer in the atmosphere protects us from harmful ultraviolet radiation from the sun.
- Greenhouse gases in the atmosphere give us the current warm temperatures that keep the earth habitable.

### **(2) Supply of Raw Materials**

The environment provides the raw materials that are physical inputs used up in our production and consumption processes. Most raw materials used in the production processes are derived from nature.

### **(3) Absorption of Waste Products**

The environment performs the 'sink-function' i.e. assimilates waste materials e.g.

- Fumes and residues from industrial processes end up in the atmosphere, soil or water systems.
- Households also produce waste (garbage) which is thrown into the environment.

### **(4) Aesthetic value/scenic beauty**

The environment provides aesthetic value to mankind and is the main driver of tourism development.

## **POPULATION AND ENVIRONMENT**

Environmental resources are finite (limited). The environment does not have an unlimited ability to meet human demands. Therefore, a rapidly growing population will at some point reach some environmental limits.

Each region or area, as well as the earth as a whole has a natural "carrying capacity"<sup>9</sup> for sustaining human population. When this natural carrying capacity is exceeded in the long term, negative consequences set in. Population growth is seen as the main source of environmental degradation because additional people will consume additional amounts of finite resources. Exponential population growth will, therefore, lead to exponential growth in industrial production, pollution, demand for raw materials and food. Since it is the less developed countries that supply excessive people on earth, the blame for environmental degradation is usually put on the people of the third world.

## **MALTHUSIAN MODEL**

Reverend Thomas Robert Malthus is the pioneer theorist on population growth and might be regarded as the father of contemporary population theory. He lived between 1772- 1828.

In 1798 Malthus wrote an essay titled: "Principle of Population". In explaining his principle of population Malthus made two claims:-

1. That food – the primary resource, but in short supply is necessary to the survival of mankind;
2. That the passion between the sexes was necessary and constant and, therefore, led to the continuous population growth. Further, Malthus claimed that it was the poorest and least intelligent people who have the greatest passion and reproduced faster than others.

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<sup>9</sup> Carrying capacity is defined as the maximum numbers of individuals of a population that can be sustained in a geographically defined area.

Using the two claims Malthus suggested that there is a universal tendency for the population of a country to increase at a geometric rate (i.e. 1, 2, 4, 8, 16, 32, 64 .....), unless checked by dwindling food supplies.

At the same time, food supplies could increase only at a roughly arithmetic rate (i.e. 1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6...) due to diminishing returns to land (a fixed factor). The law of diminishing returns states that, in any production system, there comes a point in the expansion of the system where output begins to fall relative to rising levels of inputs. Malthus therefore, concluded that the power of population was indefinitely greater than the power in the earth to produce subsistence for man i.e. food production will always grow at a slower rate than population. The end result would be that the population would live in a condition of chronic low levels of living or absolute poverty.

To avoid this situation, Malthus suggested that people should engage “moral restraint” in order to limit the number of the population.

Malthus believed that man was faced with two choices in order to check the rapid population growth. These are the:

- Preventive checks: (celibacy, delaying marriage, sexual continence). Malthus, however, did not favour preventive checks such as artificial birth control methods on religious grounds.
- Positive/compulsory checks (famine, war, diseases)

## **POPULATION AND DEVELOPMENT**

Most analyses of the link between population and development take a neo-Malthusian perspective. Taking the neo-Malthusian perspective, rapid population growth, leads to serious consequences for the well being of all humanity. This perspective holds that developing countries are incapable of improving the standards of living of their people with the current rate of population growth.

The following are some of the arguments on the relationship between population and development:

- (a) Rapid population growth makes it difficult for the provision of essential social services such as, housing, transport, sanitation, and security
- (b) Developing countries will be unable to provide health and educational services to their people.
- (c) Increasing population in developing countries will lead to vast increases in the labour force, thus causing increasing unemployment.
- (d) In developing countries most income go to consumption, leaving very little if nothing for investment due to rapid population growth.

In most developing countries the number of people of working age (economically active) is small relative to those of dependent age (up to 15 years). About 49% of total population in the developing countries is below the age of 15. This means that there are too many consumers in relation to producers weakening the economic capacity of the population.

## **GENDER AND DEVELOPMENT**

It is widely accepted that in the present times development must be informed by gender analysis. The term gender has been widely adopted but usually stripped of its original meaning; often it is merely a synonym for women. What is gender? Gender is a social construct, which refers to the roles that men and women assume in society by virtue of being male or female.

Gender can be applied at two levels:

1. At personal level: One's subjective feeling of maleness or femaleness regardless of one's sex;
2. At societal level: it applies to the social relations that exist between males and females.

On the basis of this rigid differentiation, there has been a lot of inequality between men and women, boys and girls in accessing opportunities in education, employment, politics and other areas that matter to human life. Gender roles differ from one society to another and change over time. For instance in most of our societies, it is a man's family to pay dowry, but in some parts of India, a lady's family pays to the man's side.

## **Sex**

o Is a biological term which distinguishes a person as either male or female based on biological (physiological) make up.

o By virtue of their sex, men and women have specific sex roles that they play

### **Men**

Fertilization

Determining the sex of a child

### **Women**

Child bearing

Lactation

- o But society has also come with its own rigid division of labour based on sex role stereotypes.

Sex role stereotypes are simply rigidly held and oversimplified beliefs that by virtue of their sex men and women possess distinct psychological traits and characteristics which make them better suited to take up certain roles in society than the other sex. Among sex role stereotypes:

- o For women on the positive: women are said to be humble, clean, good cooks, care for little things, etc.
- o For men on the positive: men are physically active, logical, good with calculations, don't easily cry, like outdoor activities;
- o For women on the negative: women are said to be emotional, passive, illogical, gossipers, poor in calculations, etc
- o On the negative: men are said to be dirty, untidy, care less over little things, etc
- o There is nothing natural which makes women good cooks in the house or being secretaries in offices.

- o Similarly, there is nothing natural which makes men aggressive and industrious, or sloppy in cooking or washing.

### **KEY APPROACHES TO GENDER AND DEVELOPMENT**

WID, WAD and GAD are acronyms different approaches to development work involving women.

#### **WOMEN IN DEVELOPMENT:**

The WID approach concentrates on analyzing and planning women's needs in general, usually based on practical gender needs.

- o "Practical gender needs" are mostly related to immediate needs of living, such as water, medical services and employment.
- o It focuses on women as a specific category and advocates separate development for women.
- o It aims at integrating women in development by increasing their participation, but does not necessarily address itself to the benefits of women's participation.
- o It deals with separate components or projects for women as remedial activities to bring them up to be able to participate in mainstream development.

#### **GENDER AND DEVELOPMENT (GAD)**

GAD looks at the unequal power relations between men and women as preventing women from greater access and control of resources. GAD sees women's inequality as not solely being a problem of developing countries; but even in so-called developed countries women are at the lower ends of the hierarchy. In labour market, politics, religion, finance, etc.

Using the concept of gender and gender relations, GAD tries to analyse how development strategies reshape power relations. GAD notes how economic and social change, whether planned or unplanned often gives greater opportunities to one gender. GAD approach has highlighted – violence against women – as one aspect of unequal power relations that in many places inhibit women from taking up opportunities targeted to them. GAD has also been advocating for the need to give economic value to women's bearing and caring roles. Women have a double day: paid employment and unpaid domestic work. GAD is against treating women as a homogeneous category; they emphasize differences between them based on class, age, marital status, ethnicity or race and religion.

GAD is more concerned with 'Strategic gender needs.' These arise from the subordinate position of women, and related to gender division of labour, power and control and may include legal rights, domestic violence, equal wages and women's control over their bodies. Meeting strategic gender needs is essential for achieving equality of women and men. The GAD approach challenges existing social and economic structure, and threatens those who profit by it.

## **CORRUPTION AND DEVELOPMENT**

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### **Introduction**

Corruption is a wide subject and it has gained a lot of attention in recent years. It has a lot of causes and it also impacts on development in many ways. The aim of this lecture is highlight the basic issues which will be vital for this introduction courses. The will mainly look at how corruption hinders development.

### **Definition**

Corruption - defined as 'the abuse of public power for personal ends' - has always existed. During recent decades, however, it has grown both in terms of geographic extent and intensity. Since the mid 1970s, it has infiltrated virtually every country in the world.

It was hoped that the easing of political and economic restrictions that characterised the 1990s after the end of the Cold War would have gone some way to reducing this phenomenon. Through increased openness resulting from political pluralism and the freedom of the press, the process of democratisation should, under normal circumstances, mobilise efforts to overcome corruption. However, emergent democracies are still fragile and seem to find the task of tackling established self-interests a formidable one.

Corruption is one of the causes of underdevelopment and poverty, yet poverty is in part responsible for its continuation. If a person cannot earn an honest living for himself and his family, then he is more or less forced into earning it by less honest means. Hence corruption is both the cause and the consequence of underdevelopment. In order to break the pattern we must therefore combat large-scale corruption inasmuch as it is a significant cause of underdevelopment and we must work gradually to eradicate the reasons for its propagation in society, and in particular to remedy the notorious lack of adequate income to ensure a decent standard of living.

Certain claims about corruption in developing countries are often heard: bribery and corruption can have positive effects; corruption is endemic everywhere; the costs of addressing corruption are prohibitively high; and the few resources that exist should be spent on enforcement measures, such as high-profile government watchdog agencies. But, in fact, there is increasing evidence that the economic costs of corruption are enormous; levels of corruption vary widely among developing countries; controlling corruption is feasible; and strategies to address corruption need to pay more attention to its root causes—and thus to the roles of incentives, prevention, and specific economic and institutional reforms.

The past few years have seen growing public recognition and discussion of the problem of corruption, including in addresses to the World Bank-IMF Annual Meetings. There is increasing influence of the nongovernmental organization (NGO) Transparency International, the Organization for Economic Cooperation and Development's (OECD) recent land-mark resolution to criminalize bribery abroad, and a rapidly growing body of theoretical and empirical literature on corruption and its economic impact. Equally telling is the willingness of many public officials in emerging economies to discuss openly the challenges corruption in their countries. In a recent survey of more than 150 high-ranking public officials and key members of civil society from more than 60 developing countries, the respondents ranked public sector corruption as the most severe impediment to development and growth in their countries.

### **Corruption's many Faces**

A general definition of corruption is the use of public office for private gain. This includes bribery and extortion, which necessarily involve at least two parties, and other types of malfeasance that a public official can carry out alone, including fraud and embezzlement. Appropriation of public assets for private use and embezzlement of public funds by politicians and high-level officials (associated with “grand” corruption in various countries, some of which are beset by kleptocracies) have such clear and direct adverse impacts on a country's economic development that their costs do not warrant sophisticated discussion.

The analysis of bribery of public officials by private parties—and, in particular, its impact on private sector development—is, however, more complex. In unbundling bribery, it is useful to consider what private parties can “purchase” from a politician or bureaucrat:

**Government contracts:** Bribes can influence the choice of private parties to supply public goods and services and the exact terms of those supply contracts. It can also affect the terms of recontracting during project implementation.

**Government benefits:** Bribes can influence the allocation of monetary benefits (tax evasion, subsidies, pensions, or unemployment insurance) or in-kind benefits (access to privileged schools, medical care, housing and real estate, or ownership stakes in enterprises being privatized).

**Public revenue s:** Bribes can be used to reduce the amount of taxes or other fees collected by government from private parties.



**Time savings and regulatory avoidance:** Bribes can speed up the government's granting of permission to carry out legal activities.

**Influencing outcomes of the legal and regulatory process:** Bribes can alter outcomes of the legal and regulatory process, by inducing the government either to fail to stop illegal activities (such as drug dealing or pollution) or to unduly favor one party over another in court cases or other legal proceedings.

The incidence of corruption varies enormously among different societies, ranging from rare to widespread to systemic. If it is rare, it may be relatively easy to detect, punish, and isolate. Once it becomes systemic, however, the likelihood of detection and punishment decreases, and incentives are created for corruption to increase further. This pattern of an initially rising, but then falling, cost of engaging in corrupt acts can lead to multiple equilibria: one holding in a society relatively free of corruption, the other holding in a society where corruption is endemic. Moving from the latter toward the former is likely to be harder than controlling corruption when it has become prevalent but not yet systemic. Where there is systemic corruption, the institutions, rules, and norms of behavior have already been adapted to a corrupt *modus operandi*, with bureaucrats and other agents often following the predatory examples of, or even taking instructions from, their principals in the political arena.

### **Economic Costs of Corruption**

The body of theoretical and empirical research that objectively addresses the economic impact of corruption has grown significantly in recent years. It leads, in general, to the following conclusions:

- Bribery is widespread, but there are significant variations across and within regions. For example, survey responses suggest that Botswana and Chile have less bribery than many fully industrialized countries.
- Bribery raises transaction costs and uncertainty in an economy.
- Bribery usually leads to inefficient economic outcomes. It impedes long-term foreign and domestic investment, misallocates talent to rent-seeking activities, and distorts sectoral priorities and technology choices (by, for example, creating incentives to contract for large defense projects rather than rural health clinics specializing in preventive care). It pushes firms underground (outside the formal sector), undercuts the state's ability to raise revenues, and leads to even higher tax rates being levied on fewer and fewer taxpayers. This, in turn, reduces the state's ability to provide essential public goods, including the rule of law. A vicious circle of increasing corruption and underground economic activity can result.
- Bribery is unfair. It imposes a regressive tax that falls particularly heavily on trade and service activities undertaken by small enterprises.

### **Corruption Undermines the State's Legitimacy**

Some observers have argued that bribery can have positive effects, under certain circumstances, by giving firms and individuals a means of avoiding

burdensome regulations and ineffective legal systems. But this argument ignores the enormous discretion that many politicians and bureaucrats have (particularly in corrupt societies) over the creation and interpretation of counterproductive regulations. Instead of corruption being the “grease” that lubricates the “squeaky wheels” of a rigid administration, it fuels the growth of excessive and discretionary regulations. The argument that bribery can enhance efficiency by cutting down on the time needed to process permits is also questionable. The possibility of bribery may be what causes the process to slow down in the first place. Available empirical evidence refutes the grease and “speed money” arguments by showing a positive relationship between the extent of bribery and the amount of time those enterprise managers spend with public officials.

In general terms, we can say that corruption also kills off the spirit of development. Nothing is more destructive to a society than the pursuit of 'a fast and easy buck' which makes honest people who work hard appear naive or foolish. That is why, in the context of economic reforms under the heading of 'structural adjustment', it is vital that the model advocated be one of a market economy based on a sound framework of legislation and on an efficient state. It should not allow free rein to the sort of ruthless capitalism which is aimed at immediate profit at all costs. The example of certain transition countries in the East, where a market economy has become synonymous with the law of the jungle, the Mafia and corruption, really should make us stop and think.

## **Conclusion**

In the final analysis, an economy undermined by corruption has the effect of discouraging potential foreign investors and public donors. Yet if development is to succeed, countries have to be able to attract a flow of capital.: 'Success attracts money. Waste, failure and chaos drive it away'. And although investors are very keen to do business, with the exception of a few opportunists, they all look for host countries that have a stable and predictable climate. Entrepreneurs have been known to withdraw from certain African countries - which are nevertheless rich in resources - because of the constraints imposed on them by corruption on a scale which they considered to be unacceptable. As for public donors, they are increasingly reluctant to offer financial aid to those countries that manage their own resources poorly. It is precisely this failing which is one of the causes of what we now refer to as 'aid fatigue'. Financial aid institutions should go as far as suspending their cooperation in blatant cases of corruption and bad management, just as they do in cases of serious violation of human rights.

## CONFLICT AND DEVELOPMENT

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### Introduction

Conflict is a complex subject that has attracted much attention in the development literature. Conflict has many causes and impacts; however, in the interest this lecture will mainly explore the social, economic and environmental impacts of conflict.

The word conflict has many definitions; again we will restrict ourselves to definition of armed conflict.

### Definition of Conflict

Peace and conflict research assume that

- a) Conflicts are the expression of opposing interests
- b) That they are characteristic for modern societies
- c) That they are endemic in modern societies

A conflict exists when two people wish to carry out acts which are mutually inconsistent. They may both want to do the same thing, such as eat the same apple, or they may want to do different things where the different things are mutually incompatible, such as when they both want to stay together but one wants to go to the cinema and the other to stay at home. A conflict is resolved when some mutually compatible set of actions is worked out. The definition of conflict can be extended from individuals to groups (such as states or nations), and more than two parties can be involved in the conflict. The principles remain the same.

Just for interest, it is important to note that the African continent has experienced more conflicts than the rest of the world. This scenario moved Chabal to echo the following sentiments; “conflict today seem to be a hallmark of African societies. Indeed the continent now endures a greater degree of violence than at any time since independence. African women, children and men have endured inordinate suffering”(2005).

## **Conflict and Social Development**

Here our focus will be on two major areas, namely the impact of conflicts on food security and how conflicts lead to displacements.

**Conflict and food insecurity are closely related.** The proportion of food emergencies that can be considered human-made has increased over time. Indeed, conflict and economic problems were cited as the main cause of more than 35 percent of food emergencies between 1992 and 2003, as compared to around 15 percent in the period from 1986 to 1991. More than half of the countries where undernourishment is most prevalent experienced conflict during the 1990s. As of early September 2003, the number of countries facing serious food shortages requiring international assistance in the world stood at 38. Twenty-two of these were in Africa, (FAO, 2005). Although adverse weather conditions are behind many of the emergency situations, human-caused disasters are also a major factor. Civil strife or the existence of internally displaced people or refugees is among the reasons for more than half of the reported food emergencies in Africa. In Africa, the emerging picture of food insecurity is more complex and arises from the interaction of both human and natural disaster.

There are similarities across countries but also quite distinct problems unique to specific countries. As a result, conflict constitutes the major explanatory factor for famine, hunger and malnutrition, affecting the entire region given the complex nature of the humanitarian crisis that results from conflict. Importantly though, conflict while the major cause for food insecurity, is not the only cause. Poverty, natural disasters and gender discrimination result in food insecurity and when combined with conflict tend to exacerbate further the extent of the humanitarian crisis.

The food insecurity that accompanies market disruptions also may be an incidental rather than a deliberate outcome of hostilities. For example, the diversion of trucks to the military in the Nigerian civil war of the 1960s incidentally wreaked havoc on markets and trade (DFID, 2001). Livelihoods inevitably suffer where migratory labor unrelated to a particular conflict is cut off from reaching sources of employment and income. Because of the Sudanese civil war, workers from southern Kordofan in Sudan could no longer migrate to their jobs in other regions. Bangladeshi and Filipino guest workers removed from Iraq were unintended victims of the Persian Gulf War, as were households dependent on their remittances, (Ibid).

Civil conflict is not only immediately damaging to the people directly involved, but also involves large development costs, as noted by one development writer: 'We must realize that, under conditions of social unrest, political upheaval and wars, economic modernization is impossible'. (Blom, A. and Yamindou, J., 2001).

**Displacements:** Violent conflict causes millions of people to flee their homes every year. The resulting displacement crises not only create logistical and humanitarian nightmares, these crises threaten international security and risk the lives of displaced people, aid workers, and peacekeepers. Despite the dangers posed by conflict-induced displacement, scholars, policy makers and

international organizations usually have only a partial understanding of these crises. Conflict-induced displacement consists of two main factors: 1) The violence that caused the displacement and 2) The characteristics of the resulting displacement crisis.



Conflict in Darfur, Sudan, has displaced thousands of people. Here IDP with makeshift shelters in a temporary camp in northern Darfur, December 2004. (Source: DFID, 2001)

Armed conflict has multiple, long- and short-term impacts on development, and on environmental and human well-being. The affects, even of internal conflicts, are felt at various spatial levels, within the immediate area of conflict, and often in neighbouring countries. Conflict undercuts or destroys environmental, physical, human and social capital, diminishing available opportunities for sustainable development.

Conflict impacts on human well-being, reducing quality of life, the capabilities of people to live the kinds of lives they value, and the real choices they have. It results in the loss of lives, livelihoods and opportunity, as well as of human dignity and fundamental human rights. Livelihoods are directly affected through decreased access to land, and inadequate access to natural resources, as a result of exclusion, displacement and the loss of biodiversity. Conflict can set in motion a cycle of degradation and human vulnerability. Human vulnerability refers not only to the exposure to negative environmental change, but also to the ability to cope with such change through either adaptation or mitigation.

Conflict contributes to the breakdown of social cohesion and the disruption of local governance systems; this in turn may result in established safety nets becoming unavailable. The increase in social and economic vulnerability, as

result of conflict, may in the face of environmental and land degradation, trigger new tensions and conflict over critical resources, such as water or food. The incidence of poverty may increase, not only through the loss of livelihoods but also as a result of a growing inability of people to cope with change. This loss of resilience is also directly linked to diminished access to public services, resulting in, for example, an increasing incidence of ill health, a contraction in formal employment opportunities, the destruction of subsistence livelihoods, and other entitlements failures which affect consumption and nutrition, as well as the weakening of social cohesion and heightening insecurity. The use of landmines, for example, has severely limited access to land, both during the conflict and in the long term.

Conflict is estimated to result, on average, in production losses of 12 percent and to undercut growth in the agricultural sector by 3 percent per year. War, therefore, by increasing the gap between food production and need, aggravates poverty and hunger, and consequently promotes continued dependence on food aid, (FAO, 2005).

### **Conflict and Economic Development**

The arms race and conflicts have been developed at the cost of economic development. The money spent on arms production, purchase and other general expenditure is so enormous. It is now estimated that over \$1000 billion is expended towards the military around the world annually. Since World War II, the world has spent over \$16 trillion for military purposes, (Muhammed, 1999).

Developing countries have had the foreign debts bloated due to the desire to own arms. As we may know most developing countries don't manufacture arms, so for them to acquire arms they borrow to purchase. Vital foreign exchange reserves are constantly directed towards arms imports. This continued siphoning off of the financial resources needed for investment leads to the stagnation economic growth.

Conflict also has macro-level impacts. These include a decline in state capacity, associated with a shrinking revenue base and reduced public spending, and economic stagnation as a result of a fall in exports, hyper-inflation, exchange rate depreciation, disinvestment, and capital flight. The economic impacts, however, are seldom confined to the country of conflict. Countries bordering conflict zones may need to increase security expenditure in military and non-military sectors. Additionally, they may incur new costs in relation to refugees and losses from deteriorating regional trade.

### **Conflict and the Environment**

The impacts of conflict on the environment are several. The manufacture of weapons, the transport of these weapons, and the mining of minerals for their production all place enormous demands on energy and mineral resources and a major contribution to pollution and environmental deterioration and consequently the world experience environmental such as global warming and ozone layer depletion.

Conflict also contributes to bio-diversity loss. This happens when the violence conflicts takes place in the forests which are habitat for most species. (e.g. the war in eastern D.R.Congo). Deforestation is also the result of increased dependence on charcoal for fuel. Due to infrastructural breakdown as a result of the war, the current availability of mains electricity is just 1 percent of what it was prior to the war. Supplies of kerosene and cooking gas were also disrupted by the war. Consequently, charcoal is the only option for 99 percent of the population. As a proportion of the GDP, charcoal production increased from 2 to 9 percent in 1999. However, during the most violent and unstable periods of conflict (between 1994 and 1996) commercial production of charcoal actually decreased, because of the dangers and difficulties of transporting the commodity in the war zone.

A disproportionate share of vital resources that would otherwise have been for socially relevant programmes is consumed by conflict related activities. The production of arms is now heavily dependent on non-renewable resources of uranium, titanium and chromium and copper-these will be depleted in the long run.



In conflict and postconflict situations, the sustainable management of forest resources faces many challenges. (Source: DFID, 2001)

In several parts of Africa, timber has become associated with violent conflict. The links between timber exploitation and conflict are essentially of two broad types:

- First, revenues from the timber trade may be channelled towards activities that perpetuate conflict, such as the purchase of weapons. Thus, “conflict timber” is defined as “timber that has been traded at some point in the chain of custody by armed groups, be they rebel factions or regular soldiers, or by a civilian administration involved in armed conflict or its representatives, either to perpetuate conflict or take advantage of conflict situations for personal gain... conflict timber is not necessarily illegal”.

- Second, the exploitation of timber may itself be a direct cause of conflict. This may be because of disputes over, for example, ownership of forest resources, the distribution of benefits, local environmental degradation, or social conflicts caused by immigration of timber workers. In some countries, especially when other sources of income are lacking, there is little attempt to ensure that timber production is sustainable or socially responsible.

## **Conclusion**

In conclusion it can be said that conflict undermines development and it brings untold misery to the citizens of those countries affected by warfare (whether direct or indirect). At a later stage, we will be able explore more on conflict by examining the causes of conflict and how conflicts can be resolved.



## **CULTURE AND DEVELOPMENT**

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*Dabaghian (cultural theorist) stressed "...the pride of any society lies in its culture since no society in the world could be considered great without reference to its tradition and culture."*

### **INTRODUCTION**

Culture is a term that means different things to different people. Often people trivialise the scope of the term with its definition as simply; music, singing and dancing. To them the goal of culture is nothing but entertainment. If this is not the goal of culture then what is it?

### **WHAT IS CULTURE?**

- Most definitions of culture, describe it, as the way of life of a certain group of people in a particular society.
- Culture is the totality of a people's way of life as deduced from material and non-material aspects of their life such as clothing, values, beliefs, thoughts, feelings and customs.
- It has to do with all the social, ethical, intellectual, scientific, artistic, and technological expressions and processes of a people usually ethnically and/or nationally related.
- Culture could therefore depict glaring similarities between people within the same territorial space that fosters a feeling of oneness that they would wish to preserve for future generations.
- UNESCO defines it as "the whole complex of distinctive, spiritual, emotional features that characterize a society or social group. It also includes the modes of life, the fundamental rights of the human being, value systems, traditions and beliefs".

### **WHAT ARE THE MAIN FEATURES OF CULTURE**

- Culture is shared by members of a society.
- Culture is not genetically transmitted.
- It is historically derived and ... transmitted from one generation to another
- Culture is universal-found in every human society.
- Culture is dynamic (changes over time)

## **CULTURAL DIMENSION OF DEVELOPMENT**

Our interest is in the modernization theory which says the absence of technology and incomplete disentanglement from primitive modes of life has lead to underdevelopment.

To correct this situation, the modernization theory holds that a state of development can be reached through a transfer of technological ideas, institutions, attitudes, values and cultures to the undeveloped nations.

### **However,**

For a clearer understanding of the culture - development relationship, there is a need to briefly assess the activities and stance of the **United Nations Educational Social and Cultural Organization (UNESCO)** where Zambia is a party to. The organization (UNESCO) has from inception, stressed the connection between culture and development. This is emphasised in its mission which is “advancing through the educational, scientific and cultural relations of the peoples of the world, the objectives of peace and the common welfare of mankind.”

Culture became increasingly important in the 1960s or postcolonial era with the evident deficiencies to cultural diversity in the currently adopted development model. The liberated people had become aware of mode of existence and persistently challenged the notion that modernization had to mean westernisation-rather than been based on their own tradition.

In response, in 1966, the UNESCO General Conference in Article1 of the Declaration stated that “each culture has a dignity and value which must be respected and preserved” and that “every people have the right and the duty to develop its culture.” To further fulfil the objective of making cultural factors the focal point of all strategies for development, UNESCO, earmarked four key objectives:

(i) Acknowledging the cultural dimension of development; (ii) Affirming and enriching cultural identities (iii) Broadening participation in cultural life; and(iv) Promoting international cultural cooperation.

Culture is important in the processes of social and economic development. Socially, it provides for the continuity of ways of life that people in a region or country see as significant to personal and group identity. Economically, various forms of cultural expression such as music, dance, literature, sport and theatre provide employment as well as enjoyment for many people. These contribute increasingly large amounts of money to the economies of most countries every year. Employment is also generated through the restoration and presentation of cultural heritage centres and sites - both for education and tourism. In addition, ethnobotanical knowledge can be used to improve rural livelihoods. Knowledge can help improve and maintain soil resources thus sustaining the resource base. Rural health and nutrition can be improved by encouraging the maintenance of gardens and orchards that produce foods and medicinal plants. Encouraging the

use of proven herbal medicines among people who do not have access to pharmaceuticals can also improve rural health care and possibility for exports.

Governments can enhance the contribution of culture to development through the following measures:

- **To develop** cultural heritage which can be a tool for economic and social development. This includes the protection of buildings, sites and landscapes of cultural value.
- **To promote** cultural industries, particularly tourism, which provides big opportunities for economic growth. To develop facilities for travel and tourism in those countries in which there is much room for improvement in these field (*infrastructure development*)
- **To maintain** or increase investments at the national level in cultural development and commit, where appropriate, a certain percentage of the government budget for this purpose, in accordance with overall development objectives, priorities and plans;

## CULTURAL DIFFUSION

The stimulus for cultural change can come from inside or from outside the society. External stimuli can be in the form of new ideas, new products, foreign pressure, foreign domination or from a perceived external threat. Internal reasons for change could be changes in the balance of political or social forces within the society, the effect of the discovery or adoption of new techniques, new types of knowledge or the evolution of beliefs. Some of the factors that contribute to cultural diffusion include:

Media influences - People sometimes adopt a new cultural trait in response to contact with an advertisement, or by seeing something on TV or in a movie, or by interacting directly with people who display a particular cultural trait. An example of this is commercial or cross-cultural contacts like the concept of "fast-food restaurants" such as McDonald's and KFC in China. Equally Sushi bars in the U.S

Migration - is an important example. When people move, they take their "cultural baggage" with them. So the arrival of migrants has resulted in the appearance of culture traits in areas where they were not previously present. In Australia, for example, the continent was once the exclusive domain of an aboriginal cultural community. Because of cultural diffusion, however, most of the present-day Australian people and their homeland bear the unmistakable imprint of European culture-particularly, cultural characteristics that diffused from Great Britain.

Technological innovation – The course and pace of any technological innovation are influenced by the value attached to a new invention within the social setting in which it is contained. An innovation will normally be accepted if it appears to be useful, and rejected if it is apparently useless or dangerous, but this general

rule is affected by the fact that some societies appear to be more open to change than others.

Population changes- When a thinly settled frontier fills up with people the hospitality pattern fades away, secondary group relations multiply, institutional structures grow more elaborate and many other changes follow. A stable population may be able to resist change but a rapidly growing population may not- No major population change leaves the culture unchanged.

Environmental factors – Change can come about due to floods, volcanoes, earthquakes etc making people to relocate to new places temporarily or permanently and this may change their culture or that of their new area.

Other factors (by accident) – sudden outbreak of war between nations or political instability within the country leads to displacement of people. (Rwanda and DRC citizens coming to Zambia.)

In conclusion, Ali Mazuri, the Kenyan academic, has very eloquently described the results of the failure of Africa to integrate the western development model into its cultural assumptions, a failure by no means confined to that part of the developing world : *“Africa as a whole borrowed the wrong things from the West - even the wrong components of capitalism. We borrowed the profit motive but not the entrepreneurial spirit. We borrowed the acquisitive appetites of capitalism but not the creative risk-taking. We are at home with western gadgets but are bewildered by western workshops. We wear the wrist watch but refuse to watch it for the culture of punctuality. We have learnt to parade in display, but not to drill in discipline. The West's consumption patterns have arrived but not necessarily the West's techniques of production”*.

## **MILLENNIUM DEVELOPMENT GOALS (MDGs)**

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### **Introduction**

MDGs represent a 'global consensus' on international development that world leaders, under the banner of the United Nations signed and adopted at the Millennium summit in 2000 to reduce poverty and promote sustainable development by 2015 (Gold 2005:23).

MDGs outline a wide range of human development issues covered in eight (8) broad goals with targets and indicators, aimed at initiating action to combat human deprivations to which the majority of the world population is exposed to (Ministry of Finance and National Planning -MFNP 2008).

All countries that signed the Millennium Declaration pledged commitment themselves to achieve set goals and targets by 2015. Below here is a summary of MDGs and some key targets.

Zambia is one of the signatories to the Millennium Declaration which conceived the MDGs. Zambia is said to have dedicated herself to addressing and eventually overcome the human development challenges reflected in the MDGs.

# **EIGHT MILLENNIUM DEVELOPMENT GOALS AND SOME KEY TARGETS**

| Goal # | MDG                                                      | Key Target                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                                    |
|--------|----------------------------------------------------------|-------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| 1      | Eradicate extreme poverty and hunger.                    | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>• Halve, between 1990 and 2015, the number of people living in extreme poverty;</li> <li>• Halve, between 1990 and 2015, the proportion of people who suffer from hunger.</li> </ul>                                                                                                   |
| 2      | Achieve Universal primary education.                     | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>• Ensure that by 2015, children everywhere, boys and girls alike, will be able to complete a full course of primary schooling.</li> </ul>                                                                                                                                              |
| 3      | Promote gender equality and empowering women.            | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>• Eliminate gender disparity in primary and secondary education by 2005, and all levels of education by 2015.</li> </ul>                                                                                                                                                               |
| 4      | Reduce child mortality.                                  | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>• Reduce the mortality rate of children under five by two – thirds by 2015.</li> </ul>                                                                                                                                                                                                 |
| 5      | Improve maternal health.                                 | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>• Reduce by three quarters – between 1990 and 2015, the maternal mortality rate.</li> </ul>                                                                                                                                                                                            |
| 6      | Combat HIV/AIDS, Malaria and other diseases.             | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>• Have halted by 2015, and begun to reverse the spread of HIV/AIDS.</li> </ul>                                                                                                                                                                                                         |
| 7      | Ensure environment sustainability, water and sanitation. | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>• Integrate the principles of sustainable development into country policies and programmes and reverse the loss of environmental resources.</li> <li>• Halve, by 2015, the proportion of population without sustainable access to safe drinking water and basic sanitation.</li> </ul> |
| 8      | Develop global partnerships for development.             | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> <li>• Develop a non – discriminatory and rules based trading system.</li> <li>• Provide more generous aid and deal comprehensively with the debt problem.</li> </ul>                                                                                                                       |

Source: Ministry of Finance and National Planning (2008).

Zambia's Millennium Development Progress Report for 2008, MDGs synthesize the country's own long term aspirations whose achievements are being sought through implementation of the Fifth National Development Plan (Magande, FNDP).

Magande further argued that Zambia is most likely to achieve all MDGs except for one; that of ensuring environmental sustainability (MFNP 2008).

For a better assessment, look at each individually MDG, and establish efforts Zambia has put in place towards meeting the given MDG.

### **MDG 1: Eradicate extreme poverty and hunger**

- Zambia has recognized the importance of agriculture as an engine to reduce poverty
  - o Fertilizer support program;
  - o Cattle restocking exercise;
- To reduce unemployment GRZ is encouraging investments, through creating an enabling environment for both local and foreign investors
  - o Targeting local entrepreneurs there is CEE Fund; given to unemployed people in both urban and rural areas for them to start projects to improve their income levels.

However, much more still needs to be done to empower Zambians as most of these efforts have not benefited all the intended people. Efforts to promote employment through mining activities have also been derailed by reduced mining activities and in extreme cases, closure of mines on the Copperbelt and North-Western Provinces, following the global economic meltdown.

### **MDG 2: Universal primary education**

- o Zambia has built more schools around the country
- o Substantial overall increase in enrolment due to the significant increase in the number of community schools
- o Provision of teaching and learning materials (particularly text books) and
- o Deployment of trained teachers given priority.

### **MDG 3: Promote gender equality and empowering women**

The exploitation of full potential of Zambia's human resource is constrained by gender disparities. Zambia's education has been characterized by gender disparities at all levels. Females had have higher drop out rates in the last years of middle and basic education and slightly wider at secondary and widest at tertiary level as reported in the MFNP (2003 ).

This is due to pregnancies, early marriages, domestic chores and limited accommodation for most females.

To help the girl child, the government has built more school for them like Mukamaambo II in Chongwe and Ndola girls technical school. FORUM for African Women Educationist for Zambia is also in support for a girl child (MFNP 2005-2008).

In 1996, Zambia started by at Cabinet Office. Government also came up with **National Gender Policy** in 2000 which provides guidelines for gender mainstreaming for use by government in partnership with stakeholder, including civil society and the private sector.

The National Gender Policy promotes among other things; equality in access to all levels of education and training, increasing participation of women in decision making bodies. Girls who fall pregnant are encouraged to go back to school when they deliver.

At international level, government committed itself to all the gender instruments and conventions including the Beijing Platform for Action and SADC Declaration

and its addendum on Violence Against women of 1997 (MFNP 2003 and MFNP 2008). In as much as some progress has been made real equality is still far from being achieved. Efforts have not translated into higher access to employment, income, decision making positions in the public domain or political (Gold: 2005 page 31).

#### **MDG 4: Reducing child mortality.**

Reducing child mortality is one of the targets that Zambia has a potential of achieving. According to the Millennium Development Report for 2008, infant mortality rate has reduced from 107 deaths per 1000 live births in 1992 to 70 deaths per 1000 live births in 2000.

The reduction in child mortality is mainly attributed to the strong National Health Policy that Zambia has put in place. Among government initiatives in this area include: Improved childhood Immunization rates and provision of micro nutrients such as vitamin A through supplementation and fortification of foods. Early medical interventions have also played a role in reducing childhood mortality. There has also been roll back malaria initiative e.g. using treated mosquito nets. The Prevention of Mother to Child Transmission (PMTCT) of HIV/AIDS before and after birth by allowing the mother to either do exclusive breastfeeding or breastfeed for 6 months is being encouraged. There has also been the safe water program and school nutrition and health program given to some schools.

However, the challenge to the government continues because of poor road networks and communication facilities and distance covered by both personal and mothers especially in rural areas. The attitude of some health care deliverers towards antenatal mothers should be changed if the government is to achieve this goal (MFND 2008).

#### **MDG 5: Improve maternal health**

Mortality has improved compared to the previous two MDGs report. This shows how serious the government is committed to this concern. Government has done a lot to this cause by putting up measures like the on-going training of reproductive health care providers (traditional midwives). It has insured that the procurement and distribution of contraceptives are accessible to all women. It has built more maternal and childcare in some districts. Safe mother wood is one of them; the government has introduced provision of free and effective Anti-malarial drugs to pregnant women.

The government introduced free provision of Insect side Treated Mosquito Nets (ITNs) per household to prevent malaria in pregnant women under the roll-back malaria partnership and the exception of pregnant women from user fees. Much of the achievement Zambia has made in this area can be attributed to the good will from co operating partners(MFNP2008 ).There has been a scandal of abuse of funds in the health sector. A matter which is in the court of law and donors has since withdrawn funding. We are yet to see how Zambia moves on to meeting this MDG.



## **MDG 6: Combat HIV/AIDS, malaria and other diseases**

HIV/AIDS is a world wide problem which if not fought collaboratively, may end up being out of hand. Though the MFNP 2008 MDG report shows that there has been a decline from 15.6 percent in 2001/2002 to 14.3 percent in 2007, the rate has continued to increase among women at 16.1 percent and men at 12.3 percent. The greatest achievement has been the adoption of one agreed Aids action framework. The framework forms the basis element of coordination, clearly identifying priorities, regular joint reviews, gives encouragement to all stakeholders.

The government has introduced the HIV/AIDS policy in the work place and in schools programmes are put for teachers to teach at assembly as well as integrating it in the school syllabus. The government trained 700 health personnel in 2005 to administer the Anti-Retro-Viral Therapy which are free to everyone. The government has increased the voluntary and counseling centers and Ant-Retro viral Therapy centre. Free cancer check up has as well been introduced because now with the HIV/AIDS problem is more common. The government has increased funding in the health sector for research and development of essential drugs for malaria (quatem) and other diseases.

## **MDG 7: Ensure environmental sustainability, water and sanitation.**

According MFPN 2008, Zambia needs to take a decision to fully mainstream and integrate the principles of sustainable development in all the country's policies and programmes if it is to achieve the environmental sustainability. There is need to involve all the stakeholders in achieving this goal. To help monitor and enforce environment registration and regulations, the Environment Protection Pollution Control Act (EPPCA) was enacted in 1990, which also established the Environmental Council of Zambia (ECZ) In1992.

In 1994, the National Environmental Action Plan was approved which provided updated information and environmental policy actions. All other policies like: Policy for National Parks and Wildlife, National Energy Policy, Zambia Forestry Action Plan were meant to help to achieve the environmental sustainability. Among the recent efforts has been enactment and launch of the National Environmental Policy by the Republican president meant to incorporate environmental concerns in developmental programs and projects. Challenges on the environment need to address livelihood sources particularly for the rural poor, who depend much on the natural resources (Roe 2004 and MFND).

## **MDG 8: Developing a Global Partnership for Development.**

It focuses on the need for re-orientation in international development cooperation, so that it is more conclusive for development policy dialogue and development support. It looks at issues relating to trade, aid flows, debt reforms, youth employment and communication. The emphasis is placed on the development of non -discriminatory trading and financial system, particularly assisting least developed countries to have tariff and quota free access for exports in line with free trade objectives.

This goal is purely dependent on the good will of the cooperating partners to bring about increased market access, reduced tariff and quotas including availing more aid to Zambia. Zambia is one of the few countries who have received some debt relief, upon reaching the Highly Indebted Poor Countries Initiative (HIPC) completion point. According to MFNP (2008) Multilateral Debt Relief Initiative has since been reduced to US \$ 934 Million in 2006. In terms of trade, among initiatives, Zambia is negotiating signing for Economic Partnership Agreed (EPAS) with the Europeans Union (EU). To take advantage of foreign markets, Zambia is trying to diversity her economy to increase on exports (Trocaire 2005). The government is trying to improve affordable access to new technology. The introduction of cellular phones has dramatically improved the national communication system. Rural areas have not been forgotten in this area.

However, with just two private sector providers and one public sector provider, the cellular business is not competitive enough to lower prices and efficient services. Therefore, there is need for the government to bring out transparency in licensing procedures so that there is competition in the cellular and land phones business to reduce the prices for the optimal utilisation of the new technology (MFNP 2008).

## **CONCLUSION**

Zambia has made quite remarkable progress in a number of MDGs; combating poverty, hunger, reducing child mortality, gender equality, maternal mortality and HIV/AIDS. However it is evident that the government alone cannot achieve these goals but need concerned efforts by all Zambians in all the sectors including the co operating partners as seen in the 2002 and 2008 MFND reports. All these can be only achieved when Zambia prioritises key and needed areas. Zambia still need more concerned effort on the MDGs 7 which is reported to be unlikely to be achieved for better way forward, policy priorities need to revisited, capacities developed and predicted resource flows secured and the international should assist not constrain national efforts for poverty reduction and sustainable development.